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Why Do Donors Donate? Examining the Effects of Organizational Identification and Identity Salience on the Relationships among Satisfaction, Loyalty, and Donation Behavior

Silke Boenigk¹ and Bernd Helmig²

Abstract

With an empirical study in two nonprofit industries (a money-collecting and blood-collecting organization), the authors investigate how organizational identification and identity salience together function in relation to satisfaction, loyalty, and behavior. They develop and test a model that best represents relationships featuring donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience in existing satisfaction-loyalty studies. Overall, the study empirically confirms that donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience are distinct constructs and that both have direct positive effects on loyalty, but not that much on donations. Within the money donation context, both identification constructs have stronger total effects on donor loyalty than donor satisfaction, whereas in the blood donation context, donor satisfaction has a stronger effect on loyalty. In testing the causal direction between donor-nonprofit identification and donor satisfaction, the authors also find that the path should be conceptualized from satisfaction to identification. The study contributes to the theory of organizational identification and identity salience by highlighting the advantages of taking a combined theoretical approach. Finally, the study suggests several means to implement donor identification management, including group activities, development of online communities, donor events, and more long-term-oriented tactics, all of which treat the donor as a cocreator of value.

Keywords

organizational identification, identity salience, customer-company identification, donor-nonprofit identification, donor identity salience, nonprofit services, donor relationship management

In the past decade, satisfaction and loyalty studies have moved beyond a first-generation perspective, which analyzes direct links of satisfaction, loyalty, and profit, to a more complex approach by including psychological constructs (Sen and Bhattacharya 2001). For example, Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer (2009) assess customer-company identification and customer satisfaction simultaneously and find that identification drives organizational outcomes and financial performance. As such, they call for more investigations of “the incremental explanatory power of customer-company identification beyond the influence of customer satisfaction” (p. 48). In response, we seek a deeper understanding of identification-based constructs and their influence on the relationships among satisfaction, loyalty, and behavior.

From a comprehensive review of service management research, we find that knowledge about identification constructs mainly encompasses two research streams. The first stream focuses on organizational identification, defined as people’s perceptions of belonging to a group (for details, see Ashforth, Harrison, and Corley 2008), in selected service settings. For

example, Bhattacharya, Rao, and Glynn (1995) analyze members’ identification with an art museum, and Gwinner and Swanson (2003) examine the impact of high identification levels among sports fans for sponsorship outcomes. Other studies have analyzed the identification of customers and/or employees with a service provider and its impact on loyalty and outcomes (e.g., Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer 2009; Lichtenstein, Drumwright, and Braig 2004; Netemeyer, Heilman, and Maxham 2012).

The second stream focuses on identity salience (Chattaraman, Lennon, and Rudd 2010), defined as “the relative importance or centrality of given identity (and thus role) for defining

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oneself" (Hoelter 1983, p. 141). For example, Laverie and Arnett (2000) confirm the importance of identity salience for sports fans' behavior, and Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) analyze the impact of university identity salience on alumni donation behavior. Thus, service management literature predominantly features two separate evaluations of identity-based concepts, and only two articles explicitly combine both constructs (i.e., Bhattacharya and Sen 2003; Marin, Ruiz, and Rubio 2008).

Therefore, a first research gap in the limited conceptual and empirical knowledge is how organizational identification and identity salience together function in relation to satisfaction, loyalty, and behavior. Second, we find incomplete information on the existence, causal direction, and impact of organizational identification and identity salience on satisfaction, loyalty, and behavior. In particular, although previous research has confirmed a link between customer orientation and customer-company identification (Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer 2009), no studies have addressed the path from customer orientation to identity salience. The findings on the link between satisfaction and organizational identification also remain contradictory. Mael and Ashforth (1992) report that satisfaction with the school among alumni has a positive impact on identification, but Camarero and Garrido (2011) posit a reverse causal link, from organizational identification to satisfaction, and both studies offer empirical evidence.

A third research gap entails the limited and contradictory knowledge about the role of identity salience. Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) offer empirical support for a direct link between university identity salience and donations by alumni to their former university. In contrast, Bhattacharya and Sen (2003) argue conceptually that identity salience moderates the relationship between identity attractiveness and customer-company identification, with positive effects on customer loyalty, company promotion, and customer recruitment. Marin, Ruiz, and Rubio (2008) analyze both constructs empirically and find that identity salience moderates the relationship between consumer-company identification and bank customer loyalty. These conflicting outcomes leave unanswered the question whether identity salience should be conceptualized in service management studies as a moderator.

To the best of our knowledge, no previous study has combined the two constructs and tested the relevant effects in a nonprofit relationship context. Therefore, we pursue our study in two nonprofit sector industries—namely, a nonprofit organization working to collect money for a mission to prevent cancer and a blood donation service provider. The nonprofit sector is an important research setting for several reasons. First, as Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) argue, in relationships that are social in nature, psychological constructs other than satisfaction are likely relevant, so identification demands particular consideration in this context. Second, Ahearne, Bhattacharya, and Gruen (2005) note that people are highly likely to identify with nonprofit organizations, so focusing on donor-nonprofit relationships can provide clear empirical answers to identification-based research questions. Third, donor-nonprofit

relationships are complex, in that in many nonprofit organizations, people play dual, simultaneous roles as members and as private donors (Fombelle et al. 2012; Hogg, Terry, and White 1995). Thus, a nonprofit setting features both membership and individual relationship elements. Finally, deeper knowledge about the relevance of identification-based constructs in different nonprofit relationships could help nonprofit managers implement successful donor acquisition, retention, and recovery strategies (Helmig and Thaler 2010). With these arguments, we aim to answer three main research questions:

Research Question 1: How do donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience together function in satisfaction-loyalty studies?

Research Question 2: Which conceptual model best represents both new and existing relationships featuring the two identification constructs in relation to donor orientation, satisfaction, loyalty, and donation behavior?

Research Question 3: What explanatory power does donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience have, beyond the influence of donor satisfaction, for donor loyalty and donor behavior?

In the next section, we propose a conceptual framework to represent the unexplored and underexplored links we introduce. We test this framework in two nonprofit industries because we expect differences in the degree of donor identification with a money-collecting or a blood-collecting service organization. After presenting the empirical results from the proposed model, we compare our findings with three rival models. We conclude with a discussion of our findings in the two service contexts and derive several implications for theory, measurement, and nonprofit practice.

Conceptual Framework and Hypotheses

We developed a conceptual framework that represents unexplored and underexplored relationships pertaining to identification in prior satisfaction-loyalty studies. It features three simplifying elements. First, we use orientation, satisfaction, and loyalty and thereby include the most important relationship drivers of purchase behavior identified by previous service management studies (Mittal and Kamakura 2001). We adapt these constructs to the donor-nonprofit context, with money donations on the one hand and blood donations on the other hand as the final outcome variables. The selection of the two contexts is not incidental, but rooted in the different characteristics of these donation settings. Monetary giving is an organizational process that tends to be relatively transactional and bureaucratic; the donor must provide bank account information, an address, and other such data. In contrast, giving blood is connected with a very individual, personal intervention and is an existential issue, because saving lives is the primary goal of this social exchange, but it also entails bodily contact, fear of needles, and indisposition (Lee, Piliavin, and Call 1999). Second, we model donor-nonprofit identification as an additional

driver of donor loyalty and donations. Third, we expand the framework by including donor identity salience, which we expect has direct effects on donor loyalty and donations. In contrast to previous research, we do not conceptualize a moderating effect of identity salience but rather a bidirectional relationship between donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience. However, we also test for a potential moderating effect with a rival model. Finally, and as mentioned previously, we conceptualize and test a bidirectional relationship between donor-nonprofit identification and donor satisfaction.

Because the links between satisfaction and loyalty have been well explored in various service contexts, we do not derive explicit hypotheses for all paths of the framework. Instead, in line with our focus on donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience, we develop five hypotheses pertaining to the new and underexplored relationships in the framework.

Relationship Between Donor-Nonprofit Identification and Donor Identity Salience. Existing knowledge about the correlation and causal links between donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience is somewhat vague. The two studies that combine the two constructs in one framework conceptualize and measure identity salience as a moderator. In their conceptual study, Bhattacharya and Sen (2003, p. 82) conceptualize identity salience as a moderator of the link between identity attractiveness and customer-company identification. Marin, Ruiz, and Rubio (2008) test three different moderating effects of identity salience and find support for this conceptualization.

We argue that both constructs may be directly linked and therefore that a bidirectional rather than a moderating effect exists. Our assumption is in line with the two underlying theories relevant in this study—namely, identity theory, which explains individual behaviors in relation to the self and society (Stryker and Burke 2000), and social identity theory, which helps explain group processes and intergroup relationships (e.g., Tajfel 1974). Both theories assume that identification positively affects individual behavior (e.g., positive word of mouth, buying, donating), though identity theory argues that it results from role salience, whereas social identity theory indicates that it derives from the alignment with group norms (Hogg, Terry, and White 1995; Stets and Burke 2000). Consequently, both identification constructs should be linked directly to donor loyalty, and thus identity salience should not be interpreted as a moderator. The idea of bidirectionality is based on organizational research, which suggests that identification should be regarded as “a cycle that iterates between organizational sensebreaking and sensegiving and individual identity enactment, sensemaking, and identity narrative construction” (Ashforth, Harrison, and Corley 2008, p. 359). This cycle argument indicates that group and individual processes of identification are dynamic and interconnected, so bidirectionality is plausible.

If a bidirectional relationship exists, one causal direction likely dominates in most cases. For this study, we predict that the direct link from donor identity salience to donor-nonprofit

identification is dominant for the following reasons: First, for most people, individual identification processes and benefits are more important than group processes (Frumkin and Andre-Clark 2000). Second, according to identity theory and social identity theory, the two constructs differ in their levels of stability. In identity theory, donor identity salience is a relatively stable construct; changes to the identity hierarchy represent responses to a change in the person's role. For example, if a person's role changes from being a money donor to becoming a volunteer or employee of the nonprofit organization, the salience of being a donor also changes. In contrast, social identity theory views donor-nonprofit identification as a dynamic response to the organizational context (Hogg, Terry, and White 1995). Thus, a donor's identification with a nonprofit organization might shift quickly, such as when the organization suffers a scandal. The stability argument from identity theory indicates that changes in donor identity salience are unlikely and occur only when the person's individual role changes. Thus:

Hypothesis 1: The donor identity salience → donor-nonprofit identification causal direction dominates the donor-nonprofit identification → donor identity salience causal direction in nonprofit relationships.

Effects of Donor Orientation on Donor-Nonprofit Identification and Donor Identity Salience. Donor orientation refers to the stable, durable tenor of a nonprofit organization's general norms and behavior toward its donor base. A nonprofit organization with a high donor orientation takes care of donors' needs, tries to build trusting relationships, and keeps donors' best interests in mind. Service research indicates that a customer-oriented organizational culture drives several positive outcomes, including customer satisfaction. We do not offer hypotheses about this well-accepted link. However, Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer (2009) indicate that customer orientation has a strong effect on customer-company identification. We thus predict that donor orientation is positively related to donor-nonprofit identification and further anticipate a possible unexplored link from donor orientation to donor identity salience. According to psychology studies, people are more likely to prioritize objects they perceive as positive rather than negative (Fredrickson and Branigan 2005). Therefore, the individual salience of being a donor should be greater if the nonprofit organization exhibits a strong caring strategy toward the donor. Thus:

Hypothesis 2: Higher donor orientation leads to greater (a) donor-nonprofit identification and (b) donor identity salience.

Effects of Satisfaction on Donor-Nonprofit Identification and Donor Identity Salience. Customer satisfaction is a critical factor for retaining loyal customers, but the relationship between satisfaction and identification is less certain, especially because previous findings on the link between organizational identification

and satisfaction are contradictory. For example, Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer (2009) conceptualize no relationship between the two constructs. Other models feature a path from satisfaction to organizational identification (Mael and Ashforth 1992), and still others confirm an opposite path from organizational identification to satisfaction (e.g., Camarero and Garrido 2011). Thus, the causal direction of the relationship between donor satisfaction and donor-nonprofit identification is not yet tested. Bodet and Bernache-Assollant (2011) test five alternative models to conceptualize the relationship among customer satisfaction, sports team identification, and customer loyalty and find that team identification is a mediating construct between customer satisfaction and customer loyalty. Following that study, we predict that the link from donor satisfaction to donor-nonprofit identification dominates the oppositional path. Thus:

Hypothesis 3a: The donor satisfaction → donor-nonprofit identification causal direction dominates the donor-nonprofit identification → donor satisfaction causal direction in nonprofit relationships, and higher donor satisfaction leads to greater donor-nonprofit identification.

Concerning the relationship between satisfaction and identity salience, we are aware of only one empirical marketing study that explicitly analyzed this link. Within the context of universities and their alumni, the identity salience model of relationship marketing success showed empirical evidence that “satisfaction is related significantly to identity salience” (Arnett, German, and Hunt 2003, p. 98). The authors assumed that “alumni who are satisfied with their university experience are more likely to place a university identity higher in their hierarchy of identities” (p. 94). At first sight, this result would support the opinion that the relationship between donor satisfaction and donor identity salience should in this study also be hypothesized as “higher donor satisfaction leads to greater donor identity salience.” However, we want to express our skepticism on that aspect, because of the following arguments. On the one hand, we believe that the perceived satisfaction of an individual could change over time, because positive or negative service experiences, for example, during blood-collecting events or fund-raising events, can occur at any time and could impact the satisfaction of donors. On the other hand, the character of donor identity salience is completely different to donor-nonprofit identification, because the relative importance to be a donor in the evoked set of a different other identities is not changed easily and is surely not based on one or a few negative interactions. Thus, it is more plausible that donor satisfaction leads to donor-nonprofit identification, whereas identity salience changes only if the donor’s role is affected. By combining these arguments, we generally assume that it is possible that donors who are satisfied with the work and activities of the nonprofit organization are to some extent likely to place the donor identity higher in their own role identity hierarchy. However, we assume the impact of donor satisfaction on donor identity salience to be a lot lower compared to the path between

satisfaction and donor-nonprofit. Nevertheless, we hypothesize the following:

Hypothesis 3b: Donor satisfaction is related positively to donor identity salience.

Effects of Donor-Nonprofit Identification and Donor Identity Salience on Loyalty. The relationship between customer satisfaction and customer loyalty is evident in many service industries and should transfer to nonprofit relationships (Helmig and Thaler 2010). For example, Wisner et al. (2005) find that satisfied volunteers are more likely to remain with the organization longer, donate more, and recommend the volunteer experience to others. Boenigk, Leipnitz, and Scherhag (2011) confirm that this mechanism holds among blood donors; the relationship between blood donors’ satisfaction and their loyalty is even stronger than the path from altruistic values to donor loyalty. According to social identity theory and identity theory, donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience also have additional effects on donor loyalty. Ahearne, Bhattacharya, and Gruen (2005, p. 577) test the link from customer-company identification to customer extra-role behaviors (e.g., positive word of mouth, product improvement suggestions, recruiting other customers, anticipating problems) and find empirical support, concluding that “performing such extra-role behaviors is a way to express one’s identification.” In a travel agency context, Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer (2009) offer empirical support for the link between customer-company identification and customer loyalty. Accordingly, we hypothesize that donor-nonprofit identification has a positive effect on donor loyalty. Regarding identity salience, Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) confirm effects on word of mouth, which is one dimension of loyalty. Thus:

Hypothesis 4: (a) Higher donor-nonprofit identification levels and (b) a more salient donor identity increase donor loyalty.

Effects of Donor-Nonprofit Identification and Donor Identity Salience on Donation Behavior. Finally, service management studies indicate that loyalty leads to purchase behavior (Mittal and Kamakura 2001; Olsen 2002) and better financial performance (Rust and Zahorik 1993). In a donor context, loyalty means that a donor is willing to give again, donate more, or recommend the nonprofit organization to family and friends (Sargeant and Woodliffe 2007). According to Sargeant and Jay (2010), even small improvements in donor loyalty can have profound impacts on the “profitability” of fund-raising. In line with identity theory, Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) also test the link from university identity salience to donations to a university and find a positive connection. We thus predict that both identification constructs have positive effects on donation behavior.

Table 1. Sample Characteristics.

Overall Characteristics	Sample 1	Sample 2
Donation		
Money (cancer nonprofit)	314 (51%)	—
Blood (blood donation service)	—	298 (49%)
Gender		
Female	169	109
Male	133	188
Missing responses	12	1
Age		
Young/middle-age donors (18–54 years)	148	226
Older donors (55 years and older)	154	70
Missing responses	12	1
Income		
Lower income (less than US\$60,000)	163	168
Higher income (more than US\$60,000)	139	101
Missing responses	12	29
Nature of the relationship		
Sporadic (first-time donor or a few times)	164	71
Continuous (regular donor)	150	223
Missing responses	0	4

Hypothesis 5: (a) Higher donor-nonprofit identification levels and (b) a more salient donor identity increase donations.

In the next section, we test our proposed conceptual framework empirically in two nonprofit industries and present the empirical results. Then, we test three rival models: (1) a baseline model without identification constructs, (2) a model extended with donor-nonprofit identification, and (3) a model with donor identity salience as a moderator.

Research Method

Data Collection

To test the proposed model, we conducted a large-scale, quantitative study, in cooperation with two nonprofit organizations. Sample 1 features data from private donors to a nonprofit organization working in the field of cancer prevention and therapy. This organization consists of a national umbrella association with 20 regional headquarters, and 77% of its annual financial budget comes from private donations, which supports 50–60 cancer projects each year. In addition, it operates an online shop, cooperates with and invites sponsorships from for-profit companies, and receives legacies (i.e., money and in-kind donations from wills). In November 2009, we e-mailed 3,751 questionnaires to the donor database of this nonprofit organization; 314 donors completed the survey, for a response rate of 8.4%. Sample 2 data came from blood donors at a nonprofit blood donation service. In March 2011, the same questionnaire was delivered to 1,000 members of a blood donation online community; 298 people participated, for a response rate of 29.8%. We assessed nonresponse bias for each sample by comparing early and late respondents, but it was not a significant problem for this study. Table 1 presents an overview of the sample characteristics.

Measurement

We used existing scales whenever possible and adapted them to a nonprofit context (see Table 2). The multidimensional constructs used 7-point Likert-type scales, ranging from 1 (*totally disagree*) to 7 (*totally agree*).

Donor Orientation. Nonprofit management research provides no accepted scale to measure donor orientation. Instead, previous studies have approached it as one dimension of the market orientation of nonprofit organizations (Duque-Zuluaga and Schneider 2008). Other studies have used the term but actually measure service quality aspects, such as communication quality or the payment method used for fund-raising (Sargeant and Woodliffe 2007; Shapiro 2010). Therefore, we adopted the items from Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer (2009) to measure customer orientation and transferred them to a nonprofit setting. We reflectively specify and measure donor orientation using 4 items: (1) “The nonprofit organization is taking care of donors’ needs,” (2) “The behavior of the nonprofit organization toward donors is very relational,” (3) “The nonprofit organization tries to establish a long-term relationship,” and (4) “The nonprofit organization has the donor’s best interest in mind.”

Donor-Nonprofit Identification. Three dominant approaches have served to measure organizational identification in prior literature. Mael and Ashforth’s (1992) scale contains 6 items and has been widely adopted (e.g., Bhattacharya, Rao, and Glynn 1995; Gwinner and Swanson 2003; Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer 2009). However, some critics note that all 6 items are cognitive in nature (Van Dick et al. 2006). Therefore, a multidimensional approach instead differentiates cognitive, affective, evaluative, and behavioral items to measure organizational identification (Van Dick et al. 2006; Van Dick and Wagner 2002). Van Dick et al. (2006) indicate strong empirical support for this approach, though they exclude the evaluative item from their employee identification model. To determine the differences in measurement, we first applied Mael and Ashforth’s scale and then contrasted it with the multidimensional scale. We adopted the measurement approach that provides better measurement quality for donor-nonprofit identification—the one-dimensional cognitive approach.

Donor Identity Salience. Callero (1985) developed an early scale to measure blood donor identity salience, and many service management studies have adapted this scale to their purposes and contexts. For example, to measure university identity salience, Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) use 4 items from Callero’s scale (two positive and two negative). We adopted this 4-item approach to measure donor identity salience on a 7-point scale: (1) “Giving is an important part of who I am,” (2) “Giving is something about which I have no clear feeling,” (3) “[Giving] means more to me than just donating money/blood,” and (4) “[Giving] is something I rarely think about.”

Table 2. Measurement Quality Report, Discriminant Validity, and Multigroup Comparison.

Measurement Quality of All Constructs (7-point Likert-Type Scale, 1 = <i>Totally Disagree</i> , 7 = <i>Totally Agree</i>)	Sample 1 (Money Donations) <i>N</i> = 314				Sample 2 (Blood Donations) <i>N</i> = 298			
	<i>M</i> (<i>SD</i>)	Factor Loading	AVE	Composite Reliability	<i>M</i> (<i>SD</i>)	Factor Loading	AVE	Composite Reliability
Donor orientation (Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer 2009)			.65	.87			.75	.92
The NPO is taking care of donors' needs	4.2 (1.7)	.818***			5.6 (1.4)	.811***		
The NPO's behavior to donors is very relational	5.7 (1.3)	.815***			5.8 (1.3)	.917***		
The NPO tries to establish a long-term donor relationship	6.0 (1.2)	.711***			5.9 (1.3)	.830***		
The NPO has the donor's best interest in mind	4.8 (1.5)	.865***			5.4 (1.4)	.907***		
Donor-nonprofit identification (Mael and Ashforth 1992)			.60	.90			.72	.94
When someone criticizes NPO, it feels like a personal insult	2.8 (1.9)	.762***			3.0 (1.9)	.881***		
I am very interested what other think about NPO	3.5 (1.9)	.754***			3.0 (1.8)	.864***		
When I talk about NPO, I usually say "we" rather than "they"	2.2 (1.7)	.834***			2.4 (1.8)	.881***		
This NPO's success is my success	3.0 (1.8)	.781***			2.9 (2.0)	.878***		
When someone praises this NPO, it feels like a personal compliment	2.5 (1.8)	.854***			2.7 (1.9)	.912***		
If a story in the media criticized the NPO, I would feel embarrassed	2.4 (1.8)	.626***			2.6 (1.8)	.631***		
Donor identity salience (Arnett, German, and Hunt 2003; Callero 1985; 2 items excluded)			.82	.90			.84	.91
Giving is an important part of who I am	3.4 (1.9)	.903***			4.7 (2.0)	.906***		
Giving means more to me than just donating money/blood	4.1 (1.9)	.912***			4.5 (2.0)	.926***		
Donor satisfaction (Anderson and Fornell 1999)			.96	.98			.91	.95
Overall, I am very satisfied with this nonprofit organization	5.6 (1.2)	.982***			5.8 (1.1)	.954***		
When I reflect on my expectation before I started a relationship and donated, this NPO fulfills my entire expectations	5.5 (1.3)	.980***			5.5 (1.3)	.956***		
Donor loyalty (Sargeant and Woodliffe 2007)			.52	.76			.46	.71
Willingness to donate again to this NPO	5.3 (1.7)	.694***			6.6 (0.9)	.586***		
Willingness to donate more to NPO	2.4 (1.5)	.653***			3.9 (2.3)	.545***		
Recommendation to family and friends	4.2 (2.1)	.814***			5.0 (1.8)	.858***		
Donations								
I donated money to this NPO. The total amount of giving in the last 2 years was (6-point scale from 1 = <i>little money/50 SFr</i> to 6 = <i>a lot of money/more than 1000 SFr</i>)	2.3 (1.0)	1.00	1.00	1.00	5.1 (1.4)	1.00	1.00	1.00
I donated blood to this NPO. The total numbers of events in the last 2 years was (6-point scale from 1 = <i>I time</i> to 6 = <i>more than 5 times</i>)								
Discriminant validity								
Sample 1 (money donations)	1	2	3	4	5	6		
Donations	1.0							
Donor identity salience	.00	.82						
Donor loyalty	.04	.30	.52					
Donor-nonprofit identification	.00	.36	.27	.60				
Donor orientation	.00	.14	.14	.12	.65			
Donor satisfaction	.00	.09	.12	.06	.15	.96		
Sample 2 (blood donations)	1	2	3	4	5	6		
Donations	1.0							
Donor identity salience	.03	.84						
Donor loyalty	.00	.18	.46					
Donor-nonprofit identification	.01	.25	.19	.72				
Donor orientation	.00	.07	.12	.07	.75			
Donor satisfaction	.00	.08	.22	.09	.43	.91		

Note. n.s. = not significant; NPO = nonprofit organization; AVE = average variance extracted.

SmartPLS bootstrapping with 600 iterations.

Boldface values on the diagonal are AVE; values below the diagonal represent squared correlation values.

p* < .05. *p* < .01. ****p* < .001.

The measurement quality results led us to exclude 2 items; thus, we measured donor identity salience only on the first and third items.

Donor Satisfaction. A widely accepted measure of customer satisfaction uses 2 items, as in national customer satisfaction surveys such as the American Customer Satisfaction Index (Anderson and Fornell 1999) and the European Performance Satisfaction Index (Eklöf and Selivanova 2008). Accordingly, we asked donors to evaluate the following items: “Overall, I am very satisfied with this nonprofit organization” and “When I reflect on my expectation before I started a relationship and donated, this nonprofit organization fulfilled my entire expectations” (1 = *totally disagree*, 7 = *totally agree*).

Donor Loyalty. A 3-item measure of customer loyalty offers high reliability, even in nonprofit marketing contexts (Sargeant and Woodliffe 2007). To ensure good measurement quality, we used all 3 items in this study. Donors indicated their willingness to donate again to the nonprofit organization, donate more often, and engage in positive word-of-mouth behavior about the organization.

Donations. We measured donating to the nonprofit organization using a single item, which asked the donors about the amount of money they gave to the organization in the previous 2 years. For the blood donation sample, we asked how many times the respondents had donated blood to the blood service provider in the previous 2 years.

Control Variables. To clarify the conceptual framework, we controlled not only for the two nonprofit industry differences (money vs. blood) but also for context dynamics (recently occurred scandals), donor characteristics (gender, age, income), and relationship characteristics (sporadic vs. continuous relationship; see Table 3).

Analytical Approach. We used partial least squares (PLS) path modeling to test our predictive model (Lohmöller 1989; Wold 1982). Structural equation modeling would require large sample sizes and relatively few indicators or constructs, whereas PLS can apply to relatively small sample sizes and complex models (Hair, Ringle, and Sarstedt 2012; Hair et al. 2012). We used SmartPLS 2.0 software to test all models (Ringle, Wende, and Will 2005) and employed nonparametric bootstrapping through SmartPLS to obtain the *t*-values to test for significance. Missing values were not an issue; when they rarely emerged, we used a mean replacement procedure.

Results

In general, PLS path modeling typically entails a two-step procedure that evaluates the measurement model and then the structural model (Henseler, Ringle, and Sinkovics 2009).

However, this study required three steps because we had to clarify the most appropriate causal direction of the bidirectional paths first.

Step 1: Cohen Path Analysis

The path between donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience has gone unexplored; Cohen's path analysis can support empirical tests of which of the two causal relationships is dominant (Cohen et al. 1993). Wilson et al. (2007) were, to the best of our knowledge, the first marketing researchers who used Cohen's path method within PLS modeling (see additionally, Sattler et al. 2010). For this study, Alternative 1 refers to the path from donor identity salience to donor-nonprofit identification (Hypothesis 1) and Alternative 2 moves from donor-nonprofit identification to donor identity salience. The underlying idea of Cohen's path analysis is that the estimated correlations (all direct and indirect effects = total effects) should be as close as possible to the actual correlation. The results of Cohen's path analysis for Sample 1 (money donations) revealed that the total squared error (TSE1) for Alternative 1 was .113 and that for Alternative 2 (TSE2) was .105. The error change from Alternative 1 to Alternative 2 was -7.1% ($.105$ to $.113/.113 = -.071$). In Cohen's terminology, this negative sign of the error change means that the TSE decreases in the shift from Alternative 1 to Alternative 2. We also calculated the *d*-value (Cohen 1988) by applying $([TSE2 - TSE1]/s)$, where *s* is the pooled standard deviation of TSE values, which equaled .053 (Sample 1) and .044 (Sample 2) in this study. A *d*-value of .20 would indicate a small effect, .50 a medium effect, and greater than .80 a large effect (Cohen 1988). In Sample 1, we calculated a small Cohen *d*-value of $-.152$ and, in Sample 2, no effect with a *d*-value of .006. Thus, the data do not support Hypothesis 1. In this study, the donor-nonprofit identification → donor identity salience causal direction dominates the opposite direction in nonprofit relationships. The results appear in Figure 1.

We next tested the causal direction between donor satisfaction and donor-nonprofit identification. Here, Alternative 1 refers to the path from donor satisfaction to donor-nonprofit identification (Hypothesis 3a), and Alternative 2 moves from donor-nonprofit identification to donor satisfaction. For Sample 1, we found a TSE for Alternative 1 (TSE1) of .105 and that for Alternative 2 (TSE2) of .135 (TSE change = .29). For Sample 2, TSE1 is .104 and TSE2 is .159 (TSE change = .52). From these results, the *d*-value within the money donation context is medium, with a value of .59, and the *d*-value within the blood donation context is large at 1.03. Thus, the data support Hypothesis 3a. In satisfaction-loyalty studies, the link should be conceptualized and measured from satisfaction to identification.

In addition, note that we cannot test for bidirectionality of the relationship between donor satisfaction and donor identity salience. Changing the causal direction from donor identity salience to donor satisfaction would lead to a closed-loop system,

Table 3. Results of the Partial Least Squares (PLS) Estimation for Rival Models and Multigroup Comparison.

PLS Estimation for Rival Models	Sample 1 (Money Donations, N = 314)				Sample 2 (Blood Donations, N = 298)			
	Base line Model	OI Model	IS Mod. Model	Proposed Model	Baseline Model	OI Model	IS Mod. Model	Proposed Model
Paths from donor orientation								
Donor orientation → donor satisfaction	.40***	.39***	.39***	.39***	.66***	.66***	.66***	.66***
Donor orientation → donor-nonprofit identification		.29***	.29***	.29***		.14*	.14*	.14*
Donor orientation → donor identity salience				.15**				.09 n.s.
Path from donor satisfaction								
Donor satisfaction → donor-nonprofit identification		.14**	.14**	.14*		.22***	.22***	.22**
Donor satisfaction → donor identity salience				.11*				.10 n.s.
Effects on donor loyalty								
Donor satisfaction → donor loyalty		.23***	.18***	.18***	.47***	.37***	.34***	.34***
Donor-nonprofit identification → donor loyalty	.36***	.49***	.41***	.27***		.33***	.23***	.23***
Donor identity salience → donor loyalty				.33**				.20***
Donor identity salience as a moderator			.18 n.s.				.02 n.s.	
Effects on donations								
Donor loyalty → donations	.20***	.19***	.19***	.26***	.04 n.s.	.06 n.s.	.03 n.s.	.15 n.s.
Donor-nonprofit identification → donations				-.04 n.s.				.09 n.s.
Donor identity salience → donations				-.08 n.s.				.19*
R ² donor-nonprofit identification	—	13%	13%	13%	—	11%	11%	11%
R ² donor identity salience	—	—	—	41%	—	—	—	28%
R ² donor satisfaction (%)	16	16	16	16	44	44	44	44
R ² donor loyalty (%)	13	33	39	40	22	32	35	35
R ² donations (%)	4	4	4	4	0	0	0	5
Goodness of fit (GoF)	.28	.34	.36	.40	.39	.39	.41	.43
f ² (for R ² donor loyalty)	—	.30	.43 ^a /.10 ^b	.45 ^a /.12 ^b	—	.15	.20 ^a /.05 ^b	.20 ^a /.05 ^b
Sample 1								
Sample 2								
Multigroup comparison (Henseler test)								
Donor satisfaction on donor loyalty								
Gender: female vs. male	.23 vs. .11			.11 n.s.	.29 vs. .35			.66 n.s.
Age: middle age vs. older donors	.26 vs. .12			.08 n.s.	.30 vs. .62			.96*
Income: Lower vs. higher income	.20 vs. .18			.43 n.s.	.32 vs. .32			.52 n.s.
Relationship breath: sporadic vs. continuous	.22 vs. .15			.25 n.s.	.34 vs. .39			.64 n.s.
Donor-nonprofit identification on donor loyalty								
Gender: female vs. male	.26 vs. .34			.73 n.s.	.27 vs. .18			.25 n.s.
Age: middle age vs. older	.34 vs. .23			.19 n.s.	.26 vs. -.11			.05*
Income: lower vs. higher income	.21 vs. .32			.82 n.s.	.32 vs. .10			.04*
Relationship breath: sporadic vs. continuous	.27 vs. .31			.65 n.s.	.22 vs. .21			.48 n.s.
Donor identity salience → donor loyalty								
Gender: female vs. male	.32 vs. .34			.56 n.s.	.15 vs. .27			.78 n.s.
Age: middle age vs. older donors	.21 vs. .43			.96*	.21 vs. .25			.65 n.s.
Income: lower vs. higher income	.36 vs. .30			.32 n.s.	.10 vs. .38			.97*
Relationship breath: sporadic vs. continuous	.28 vs. .35			.71 n.s.	.22 vs. .19			.38 n.s.

Note. Baseline model = model without any identification construct; OI model = organizational identification model; IS mod. model = identity salience moderator model.

n.s. = not significant. SmartPLS bootstrapping with 600 iterations. All statistical significances of boldface values are given, wherever appropriate.

Effect sizes for f²: ^aCalculation of f² for the mentioned model in comparison to the baseline model. ^bCalculation of f² for the mentioned model in comparison with the organizational identification model.

Phenseler indicates the probability that the second group's population parameter is greater than that of the first group (p > .05 = not significant (n.s.). In the case that the second population parameter is greater than the first, p < .95, which is not significant. The results from Henseler (2007) were eligible for a one-sided test.

*p < .05. **p < .01. ***p < .001.

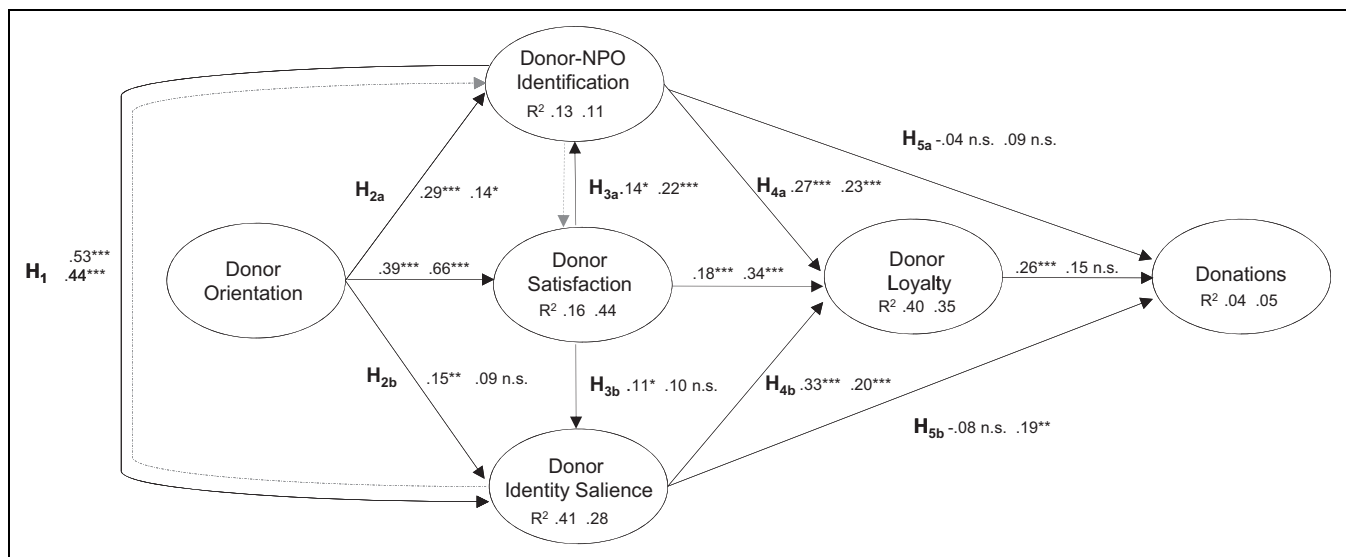


Figure 1. Results of the proposed model: Samples 1 and 2. *Note.* Control variables: (1) Context dynamics: no indication of scandals during the study period. (2) Donor and relationship characteristics have been tested applying multigroup comparison analysis. Results are shown in Table 3. (3) Nonprofit industry differences: heterogeneity across industries exist, see results above. Assessment of two PLS Models: Sample 1: money donations, $N = 314$ (Sample 2: blood donations, $N = 298$); * $p < .05$; ** $p < .01$; *** $p < .001$; n.s. = not significant. SmartPLS Algorithm Settings: Path Weighting Scheme (additional test with factor weighting scheme show no influence on the results); Data metric mean = 0, variance = 1; maximum iterations = 300; abort criterion = $1.0E-5$. SmartPLS bootstrapping settings: cases = 600 iterations; sample = 314 (298). Dotted paths: Bidirectional flow has been tested applying Cohen's d path analysis. The causal direction indicated by a dotted path is not supported by the data.

and consequently we would not be able to estimate the model with PLS.

Step 2: PLS: Evaluation of Measurement Quality

In Step 2, we evaluated the measurement quality of the reflective measurement models by determining their item reliability, construct reliability, and discriminant validity. For the item reliability assessment, the factor loadings of the reflective constructs should be greater than .7, which would indicate that more than half the variance in the observed variable was due to the construct. The average variance extracted (AVE) should be above the critical value of .5 (Fornell and Larcker 1981), and composite reliability should be equal to or greater than .7 (Nunnally and Bernstein 1994). Table 2 presents an overview of measurement quality.

The relationships between the reflective items and the constructs were all significant; most items indicated factor loadings greater than .8. The results in Table 2 further show that except for donor loyalty, all factor loadings achieved reliability and validity. For loyalty, two factor loadings were slightly below the threshold: .694 for “willingness to donate again” and .653 for “willingness to donate more.” In Sample 1, the AVE for donor loyalty was slightly above the critical value (.52), but in Sample 2, it was only .46. We interpret this weak AVE result as a first hint of the need to measure blood donor loyalty further. However, the composite reliability was satisfactory in both samples.

To identify the highest measurement quality for donor-nonprofit identification, we first estimated the model using six

cognitive items from Mael and Ashforth's (1992) scale and then contrasted the outcome with the results from the previously mentioned multidimensional measurement approach (Van Dick et al. 2006). We found that the multidimensional approach did not improve measurement quality for donor-nonprofit identification. For example, in Sample 2, the weak AVE reached only .37, in contrast to the .72 value obtained using Mael and Ashforth's scale. Composite reliability was also much weaker (.69 vs. .94) when we used the multidimensional measure. In addition, Cronbach's α value was only .52 for the multidimensional measurement approach, compared with .89 for the Mael/Ashforth scale. Therefore, we finally applied the six traditional items of Mael and Ashforth's scale documented in Table 2 to evaluate donor-nonprofit identification.

The evaluation of measurement quality for donor identity salience led to some concerns with both AVE and composite reliability. First, we tested the 4-item measurement approach that Arnett, German, and Hunt (2003) suggest. The AVE values for both samples were .53, marginally above the critical value, but the composite reliability attained only unacceptable values of .16 (Sample 1) and .13 (Sample 2). With a reverse coding of the two negative items (see Arnett, German, and Hunt 2003), the AVE decreased further to .4. Therefore, we deleted the 2 items with low factor loadings (Items 2 and 4), which produced satisfactory measurement quality for donor identity salience. With the 2-item approach, the AVEs were .82 and .84, and the composite reliability scores were .90 and .91 for Samples 1 and 2, respectively (for the same problems on measurement quality, see Lee, Piliavin, and Call 1999).

Second, we tested the discriminant validity of the model using Fornell and Larcker's (1981) criterion, which requires that each construct shares more variance with its own indicators than with any other constructs' indicators in the model ($AVE > \text{squared correlation}$). The results in Table 2 show that this criterion was fulfilled, in support of discriminant validity.

Step 3: PLS: Evaluation of the Structural Model

The central criteria for evaluating the structure of the PLS model are the path coefficient estimation for each link and the rate of reliability (R^2) for the endogenous variables. In nonprofit marketing studies, no accepted opinion on threshold values for a weak, moderate, and substantial R^2 exist; but the closer to 1, the better. Therefore, we follow the recommendations of Chin (1998) and argue that R^2 values less than .19 indicate weak statistical power, those up to .33, moderate, and those of .67 or greater, substantial. The results derived from the proposed model (all path coefficients, R^2 values, p values with $*p < .05$; $**p < .01$; $***p < .001$) appear in Figure 1. Because the empirical results vary with the service industry being studied (Rigdon et al. 2011), we report the results of the two samples separately in Figure 1 (with the blood donation Sample 2 in brackets).

Although we reject Hypothesis 1, which postulates a causal direction from donor identity salience to donor-nonprofit identification, we found based on the SmartPLS bootstrapping procedure with 600 iterations significant path coefficients of .53 (money donations) and .44 (blood donations) for the reverse direct relationship, from donor-nonprofit identification to donor identity salience. In both samples, the R^2 values for donor identity salience were moderate, at .41 and .28, respectively.

In support of Hypothesis 2a, the data show significant path coefficients for the link from donor orientation to donor-nonprofit identification in both samples. However, in Sample 1, the effect was stronger, with a value of .29 compared with .14 for Sample 2. Moreover, the links from donor orientation to donor identity salience were not homogeneous: There was a significant path coefficient of .15 for the money donation context, but a smaller, nonsignificant path coefficient of .09 for the blood donation context. Therefore, Hypothesis 2b receives only partial support from the data. The strongest effects emerged in the path from donor orientation to donor satisfaction, with coefficients of .39 (Sample 1) and .66 (Sample 2). We also found strong differences in the R^2 values for donor satisfaction in the two industries. In Sample 1, the weak R^2 only reached .16 and in Sample 2, it was moderate at .44.

In support of Hypothesis 3a (*higher donor satisfaction leads to greater donor-nonprofit identification*), we found support in both samples and significant path coefficients (Sample 1: .14; Sample 2: .22) from donor satisfaction to donor-nonprofit identification. For Hypothesis 3b, which posits that donor satisfaction has a positive effect on donor identity salience, we found a significant path coefficient of .11 in Sample 1, but could not confirm this relationship with Sample 2. In Sample 2, the path

is not significant with a path coefficient of .10. Therefore, Hypothesis 3b is partially supported by the data.

Hypotheses 4a and 4b receive support from the data; both identification constructs exerted positive impacts on donor loyalty. Unexpectedly, and in contrast to the studies that indicate that satisfaction is the most influential driver of loyalty, we found in the money donation context that the highest path coefficient for donor loyalty was the one from donor identity salience to donor loyalty (path = .33). Although the two other drivers were significant, their lower values indicated weaker effects. A contrary outcome arose in the blood donation context: Donor satisfaction had the greatest impact on donor loyalty, with a path coefficient of .34, followed by donor-nonprofit identification (.23) and donor identity salience (.20).

We also calculated the total effects of satisfaction, identification, and identity salience on donor loyalty. For the calculation of the total effects for a relationship, we used the sum of direct and indirect path relationships, as implemented in SmartPLS software as a standard routine. The indirect effect represented the multiplication of all possible path coefficients pertaining to this relationship. However, the total effects for donor loyalty confirmed that in Sample 1, donor-nonprofit identification exerted the greatest total effect on loyalty, with a value of .45, followed by donor identity salience (.33) and donor satisfaction, with its total effect of .28. In Sample 2, the importance of the three constructs differed. Donor satisfaction had the strongest total effect on loyalty (.43), followed by donor orientation (.35), donor-nonprofit identification (.32), and donor identity salience (.20).

Finally, studying the effects on donation behavior, we found no support for Hypothesis 5a. The path coefficients for the link from donor-nonprofit identification to donations were low and nonsignificant (Sample 1: $-.04$; Sample 2: .09). Hypothesis 5b receives only partial support; we found a path coefficient of .19 in the blood donation context but a nonsignificant effect ($-.08$) in the money donation context. In regard to R^2 , we found critical values of .04 and .05 for donations. Consequently and besides the identification constructs that are here in the focus of the analysis, other factors such as income should be taken into account to explain real donation behavior of individuals.

Control Variables

First, and in line with social identity theory, we found that identification with an organization is not always stable; therefore, we controlled for context dynamics. In interviews with the managers in the two nonprofit organizations, we asked whether any scandals or image problems had occurred in the past 12 months that might have influenced donors' identification; both respondents reported that no such event occurred. Furthermore, searches of popular media for negative articles about the two organizations produced no results. Thus, because there was no indication of scandals during the study period, related contextual factors that might affect the level of identification can be neglected.

Second, previous research confirms that customer characteristics (Mittal and Kamakura 2001) and relationship characteristics (Bolton, Lemon, and Verhoef 2004) are important drivers, and thus we controlled for three paths from donor characteristics (age, gender, and income) to donor loyalty. In the PLS path modeling analysis, we cannot include the control variables directly in the proposed model; therefore, we tested them by applying a multigroup comparison analysis (Sarstedt, Henseler, and Ringle 2011). We followed Henseler's (2007) recommendation and applied a bootstrapping approach for the multigroup comparison.

This approach compares specific paths in two subsamples by applying separate bootstrap analyses; the bootstrap outcome then serves as a basis for testing the probability that group differences exist. The p_{Henseler} value expresses "the probability that the second group's population parameter will be greater than that of the first" (Sarstedt, Henseler, and Ringle 2011, p. 202). We compared several donor characteristics: female versus male, middle age (18–54 years) versus older people (55+ years), and lower income (less than US\$60,000) versus higher income (more than US\$60,000). We did not include younger people (under 18 years) in this study because blood donation is permissible in Europe only for those aged 18–68. Furthermore, we controlled for the character of the relationship by differentiating sporadic (first-time donation or few donations) versus continuous (regular donations) donor relationships. As Table 3 shows, not many significant group differences emerged, and most of the p_{Henseler} values were not significant. For Sample 1, the multigroup analysis indicated that donor identity salience exerted a greater impact on donor loyalty for older donors than for middle-age donors. For Sample 2, the same age effect emerged for the links from donor satisfaction to donor loyalty and from donor-nonprofit identification to donor loyalty. Moreover, donor loyalty was stronger for the group of blood donors with higher incomes in both identification paths.

Estimation and Evaluation of Three Rival Models

As mentioned previously, the model documented in Figure 1 is the first to combine both identification constructs to indicate the direct effects on donor loyalty and donations. To compare the results of the proposed model with previous research models and findings, we estimated three rival models. Table 3 provides an overview of the results of the PLS estimation.

Baseline Model. In both samples, we tested a baseline model that contained no identification constructs but rather links from donor orientation to donor satisfaction, from donor satisfaction to donor loyalty, and from donor loyalty to donations. Similar to previous satisfaction and loyalty studies, we found significant path coefficients from donor orientation to donor satisfaction ($\text{Path}_{s1} = .40$; $\text{Path}_{s2} = .66$) and from donor satisfaction to donor loyalty ($\text{Path}_{s1} = .36$; $\text{Path}_{s2} = .47$). Regarding the effects from donor loyalty to donations, we found a significant path coefficient in the money donation context ($\text{Path}_{s1} = .20$)

but a low, nonsignificant one in the blood donation context ($\text{Path}_{s2} = .04$). The explanatory power of the baseline model for donor satisfaction was weak in Sample 1 ($R^2 = 16\%$) and moderate in Sample 2 ($R^2 = 44\%$). We also found weak R^2 values for donor loyalty, at 13% and 22%, respectively. These R^2 values for donations in Sample 1 were equivalent in the proposed and baseline model (4%) but below the limit of detection for Sample 2 ($R^2 = .00$).

Organizational Identification Model (OI Model). We also tested a second rival model, similar to that which Homburg, Wieseke, and Hoyer (2009) present. This model integrated donor-nonprofit identification (but excluded donor identity salience), and we assessed the effects on donor satisfaction, donor loyalty, and donations. In both samples, donor orientation exerted an effect not only on satisfaction but also on donor-nonprofit identification ($\text{Path}_{s1} = .29$; $\text{Path}_{s2} = .14$). Moreover, the links from donor satisfaction to donor-nonprofit identification were significant ($\text{Path}_{s1} = .14$; $\text{Path}_{s2} = .22$). Regarding the effects on donor loyalty, in Sample 1, the path coefficient from donor-nonprofit identification to donor loyalty was higher (.49) than the one from satisfaction to loyalty (.23). In Sample 2, the effect of donor-nonprofit identification on loyalty was not strong, though the path coefficient was significant (.33 vs. .37). Overall, the empirical results for this second rival model were generally similar to those of the proposed model, but the R^2 values for donor loyalty were lower, at 33% and 32%, than in our proposed model (40% and 35%).

Identity Salience Moderator Model (IS Mod. Model). A rival model with donor identity salience as a moderator of the relationship between donor-nonprofit identification and donor loyalty provided another comparison for analysis. We tested for a potential moderating effect by applying the product indicator approach that Henseler and Chin (2010) recommend. The results in Table 3 reveal the low, nonsignificant path coefficients of the interaction variable (Moderating effect $_{s1} = .18$, n.s.; Moderating effect $_{s2} = .02$, n.s.). In contrast to previous research, we did not find any moderating effect of donor identity salience on the relationship between donor-nonprofit identification and donor loyalty.

Model Fit in PLS. Beyond these results, we require more justification to confirm that the proposed model is preferable to the three noted rival models. Unlike structural equation modeling with LISREL or AMOS, PLS path modeling does not offer a global goodness-of-fit (GoF) criterion. Tenenhaus et al. (2005) propose a GoF index that uses the geometric mean of the average communalities and the average R^2 of endogenous latent variables. For our proposed model, the GoF values were .40 (Sample 1) and .43 (Sample 2); that is, the quality of the explanation was nearly the same in both nonprofit service industries. Furthermore, the GoFs for the proposed model were slightly higher than those derived from the other rival models.

Considering the limitations of the GoF index (Hair et al. 2012; Henseler and Sarstedt 2012), we cross-validated the

proposed model by calculating the effect size ($f^2 = (R^2_{\text{included}} - R^2_{\text{excluded}})/(1 - R^2_{\text{included}}$; Cohen 1988). For both samples, we evaluated whether the integration of the two identification constructs into the baseline model had a weak ($f^2 \geq .02$), moderate ($f^2 \geq .15$), or substantial ($f^2 \geq .35$) effect on donor loyalty. In the money donation context, we found a moderate f^2 value of .30 when we included donor-nonprofit identification (Table 3, Sample 1: OI model). The effect size (.43) increased when we integrated donor identity salience as a moderator of the relationship between donor-nonprofit identification and donor loyalty, but again the moderating effect was not significant in the third rival model. Finally, we found a substantial effect size (.45) when we included both donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience in the baseline model. For the identity salience moderator model and the proposed model, we also compared the effect size on loyalty with that in the organizational identification model; there was a weak effect size of .10 for the former model and a slightly stronger one (.12) for the proposed model.

In the blood donation context, the moderate f^2 value of .15 showed that the organizational identification model outperformed the baseline model (Table 3, Sample 2: OI model). For the identity salience moderator model and the proposed model, we found moderate effect sizes in comparison with the baseline model, at .20 in both cases. In comparison with the organizational identification model, the effect of integrating donor identity salience as a moderator or direct path was weak. Overall, the performance of the proposed model in the money donation context was slightly clearer than that in the blood donation context. For completeness, we also calculated the effect sizes for donations but found no effects.

Discussion

Only partial and incomplete knowledge exists about the role of organizational identification and identity salience on the relationship among satisfaction, loyalty, and donations. To answer our first research question, we developed a theoretical framework that combines both constructs in relation to donor loyalty and donations and evaluated a possible bidirectional relationship. We did this within two nonprofit service contexts: money donations versus blood donations. Overall, the key findings reveal that donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity are distinct constructs and that both explain donor loyalty, but not donations. For the first time, we test the causal direction between donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience and confirm a causal link from identification to identity salience. Finally, and in contrast to previous studies, we find that both identification constructs should be conceptualized according to their direct links to loyalty.

The second research question prompted us to propose the conceptual framework in Figure 1, which combines donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience. The most striking difference from previous studies is that we find empirical support for direct links from donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity to donor loyalty. Our data do not support

donor identity salience as a moderator. Moreover, we test the causal direction between donor-nonprofit identification and donor satisfaction and find that the path from satisfaction to identification is dominant and should be conceptualized as such in future service management studies. To provide a better test of the proposed model, we compared it with three rival models: a baseline model without identification constructs, an organizational identification model with one identification construct (donor-nonprofit identification), and an identity salience moderator model in which we conceptualized donor identity salience as a moderator of the link between identification and loyalty. Although all the models featuring identification explained a significant amount of the variance in donor loyalty, the effect sizes improved in the proposed model compared with the organizational identification and baseline models.

In addition, we conducted this research to assess our third research question. Although in general the proposed model fits with money and blood giving, we found differences in the relative size of the path coefficients in the model. Therefore, heterogeneity across industries must be taken into account. In the blood donation context, the path coefficients of donor orientation on satisfaction are much higher (.66 vs. .39) than in the money-giving context. This result is not surprising, because service quality aspects (e.g., physician competence) more strongly affect blood donation. As a consequence of the confirmation-disconfirmation of donors' expectations, the total effect of donor satisfaction on donor loyalty is the strongest of the three tested paths. In contrast, in the money donation setting, it is challenging for donors to be satisfied because they cannot easily evaluate the extent to which their donated money is used to support the social mission of the nonprofit organization, rather than cover administrative/marketing costs.

The larger satisfaction effect in the blood donation context may also be influenced by the positive word of mouth of family members. Thus, to some extent, the decision to donate blood is more a group behavior, whereas money giving is more an individual decision. This may explain why the path coefficient from donor identity salience to donor loyalty in money giving is larger than in blood giving. Furthermore, the path from donor identity salience to donations is nonsignificant in the money donation context but, similar to Arnett, German, and Hunt's (2003) findings, significant in the blood donation context. This difference likely stems from the differing salience of donors in each context, which, according to sociological studies, is much higher for blood than monetary donations (Lee, Piliavin, and Call 1999).

Furthermore, we find a remarkable difference in the path from donor loyalty to donations, which is nonsignificant in the blood donation and significant in the money-giving context. We posit that the main reason for this empirical result is the limited amount of blood donations allowed per person in a year combined with the already high loyalty level in the blood donor base. For example, women between the ages of 18 and 68 may donate blood up to 4 times a year, and men of the same age may do so 6 times per year. For our blood donor sample, the mean donation level for the willingness

to donate blood again is 6.6 (on a 7-point scale). Thus, increasing donor loyalty among this sample would not have a powerful or significant effect, because donors would not have the capacity to donate more.

Limitations

As is true for any study based on survey data, this research has some limitations. First, this investigation did not include employee identification (Maxham, Netemeyer, and Lichtenstein 2010), so the results are limited to external identification effects. Further research could replicate and extend the model by integrating internal factors. Second, the research included only two nonprofit industries. Additional research in other service sectors could provide a deeper understanding of organizational identification and identity salience, particularly in regard to time giving and volunteering. The role of donors is also not equivalent to that of customers; donors seem to have a more complex identity than customers. For example, one person might be a donor, customer, and volunteer simultaneously (Helmig et al. 2004). Third, all the measures were self-reported by donors, which creates a potential for monomethod bias. Further research could collect objective data about fund-raising performance to obtain a fuller picture of the outcomes. Fourth, other influential factors could be tested, such as competitive fund-raising intensity (e.g., campaigns by other organizations). Fifth, with the closed-loop effects in the PLS analysis, we were not able to test the potential bidirectionality between donor satisfaction and donor identity salience, which thus provides a potential objective in future studies. Finally, we did not examine the negative consequences of identification processes in organizations or identity synergy (Fombelle et al. 2012), which suggests potential avenues for future research studies.

Implications for Theory and Measurement

This research contributes to the theory on organizational identification and identity salience. Indeed, our study suggests that service researchers should take a combined theoretical perspective and use identity theory and social identity theory to explain the relationship behavior in satisfaction-loyalty studies. In doing so, our findings direct attention to both the differences in the theoretical approaches and the potential learning for service researchers in combining them (Brickson 2012; Hogg, Terry, and White 1995; Stets and Burke 2000).

First, the results of this study indicate that identity theory focuses on individual roles and the individual's relationship with an object of identification (e.g., organization, brand, project, person); social identity theory is about group characteristics and group behavior. In most identity theory research, individual, relationship-inducing factors, such as the degree of personal satisfaction or engagement in the organization, represent the central focus of the analysis (Arnett, German, and Hunt 2003). In contrast, member characteristics (e.g., gender, age, nationality) or organizational characteristics (e.g., size, country, and culture)

take greater precedence in social identity theory studies. From an integrative theoretical perspective, service marketing researchers should consider both individual relationship factors and group/membership factors to address identification issues.

Second, we show that the stability of the two identification construct varies across the two theories. In identity theory, people's identification with an organization is relatively stable, and any changes are primarily responses to a change in their role (or identity salience). In contrast, social identity theory views identification as a dynamic response to the context in which the organization functions. Thus, a person's identification with the organization might change quickly in response to scandals or other image problems. From our combined theoretical perspective, we propose that researchers should always recognize the relative importance of the identification object to a person, such that they integrate the construct of identity salience into any identification-based research frameworks. Moreover, researchers should recognize the potential dynamics of the context and thus control for the potential effects of image problems that alter the level of identification with an organization.

Third, in taking a combined theoretical perspective, this study also contributes to the measurement of organizational identification and identity salience. Identity theory explains in detail the cognitive process of identifying the self, which relies mainly on cognitive dimensions. Therefore, our finding that the best measurements for organizational identification are those in Mael and Ashforth's (1992) scale fits with theory.

Fourth, the results indicate that identity salience can also be measured by applying a 2-item approach without a decrease of measurement quality—for example, by adopting Callero's (1985) scale. Researchers should use "Giving is an important part of who I am" and "Giving means more to me than just donating money/blood."

Fifth, the results indicate that researchers should be careful in adopting the well-accepted items "willingness to donate more," "willingness to donate again," and "recommendations to family and friends" to measure blood donor loyalty; we found low-quality measures. Therefore, additional research on the measurement of blood donor loyalty is necessary.

Implications for Nonprofit Management

Our study also has several implications for managing donors of nonprofit organizations in general. Our study reveals findings that help derive managerial recommendations according to the specific donation context (money or blood). First, for nonprofit organizations that collect donations, relationships with their donors are crucial. Our results across both nonprofit contexts clearly prove that donor orientation, specifically in terms of enhancing long-term relationships and acting in a relational way, has a strong impact on donor satisfaction, identification, and identity salience. Consequently, maintaining long-lasting relationships with donors is of utmost importance. Therefore, the instruments applied for relationship marketing must be carefully adapted to the donation context. Organizations should implement activities and initiatives that strengthen donors'

perceptions that it is taking care, has the donors' best interests in mind, and works to establish long-term relationships. For example, a nonprofit-oriented online community could encourage in-depth discussions about topics of interest to donors and thereby foster feelings of belonging to a group with shared values.

Second, our study shows that donor-nonprofit identification (group level) and donor identity (individual level) are distinct constructs and that identification influences identity salience; thus, management should concentrate primarily on influencing donor-nonprofit identification. We recommend that managers integrate donor-nonprofit identification and donor identity salience measures into their regular donor satisfaction surveys. Annual measurement of identification constructs and an in-depth investigation of their impact on donor loyalty and donations would provide a foundation for additional activities. Managers should also define identification goals for each target group and develop strategies and actions to stimulate identification. Note that across the two nonprofit industries, donor satisfaction proved an important driver of donor identification. Consequently, nonprofit managers should sensitize their employees and volunteers to donor behavior to ensure high levels of donor satisfaction, identification, and loyalty and implement training programs and incentive systems to achieve this. Nonprofit organizations should also consider implementing identification-oriented corporate communication strategies and media campaigns. For example, to increase identification, the media campaign by Doctors without Borders uses a virus metaphor, such that all donors "infected" with the virus can help spread the mission of the organization worldwide.

Third, regarding the instruments to strengthen donor identity salience, managers should actively stimulate individual relationships with donors. For example, by issuing invitations to events or providing quick and personal responses to questions, organizations can treat donors as cocreators of value, not as anonymous providers of resources. Through value cocreation, nonprofit managers and donors become equally responsible for decisions about fund-raising projects, campaigns, or new strategies, which in turn can lead to strong identity salience.

In terms of context-specific recommendations, we stress that in the blood donation setting, donor satisfaction plays a much more important role in achieving donor loyalty than in the money donation context. Thus, active management and excellent service quality during the interaction between the donor and the organization are crucial. In addition, both structure quality and process quality management aspects should be taken into account.

In the money donation context, to achieve donor loyalty, identity salience is of greater importance than in the blood donation context. Consequently, communications from nonprofit organizations that collect money should stress a good "fit" between the organization and the donor. Organizations that are well informed about their donors can meet their needs and wants more effectively. Here, communication and tone should focus on targeting the individual donor, not the group. In turn, achieving a high degree of donor loyalty will translate into future donations more or less directly.

Finally, the direct influence of nonprofit organization activities on donor levels remains limited. To increase donations, nonprofit organizations could advocate charitable giving as a tool for transforming public well-being. In doing so, they could emphasize that giving is an important part of people's lives and encourage them to donate to their organization.

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